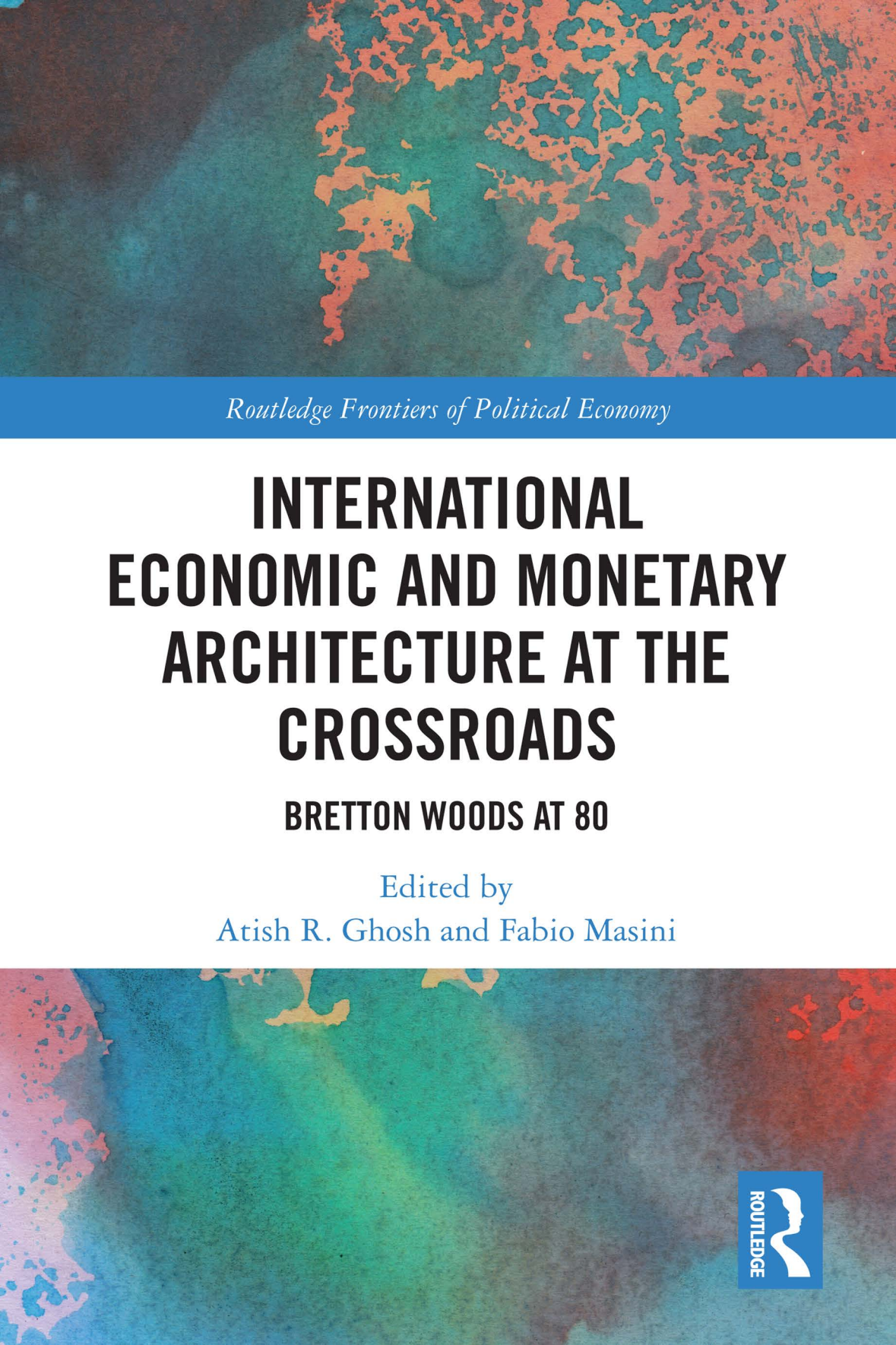




Routledge Frontiers of Political Economy

INTERNATIONAL ECONOMIC AND MONETARY ARCHITECTURE AT THE CROSSROADS

BRETTON WOODS AT 80

Edited by
Atish R. Ghosh and Fabio Masini



International Economic and Monetary Architecture at the Crossroads

The International Monetary Fund and World Bank were founded at the 1944 Bretton Woods conference on the premise that international cooperation and multilateralism would be to the benefit and enrichment of all. Yet, the establishment and evolution of the global financial architecture into its current form were not inevitable: this edited volume examines the “roads not taken” – critical junctures in the histories of the International Monetary Fund and the World Bank – where the choices made, and the decisions taken, would have far-reaching consequences.

Goeconomic fragmentation, nationalism, and extreme protectionism pose threats to the open trade and payments system and are jeopardizing the hard-won gains in global incomes and living standards driven by postwar trade and globalization. Against the urgent need to rekindle the Bretton Woods spirit of cooperation and multilateralism, while also reckoning with the shortcomings of the postwar international order as they were revealed over time, the authors of this volume turn to history for inspiration, lessons, and insights from both the roads taken and those left for another day. The book also demonstrates that future reform can be inspired by previous intellectual and theoretical efforts.

The book will be of great interest to readers interested in the past, present, and future of international monetary systems, economic governance, and international finance and banking more broadly.

Atish R. Ghosh is the Historian of the International Monetary Fund. His recent work has focused on issues related to the stability of the international monetary system. He has published numerous influential studies on international policy coordination and exchange rate regimes, including three books: *Economic Cooperation in an Uncertain World* (1994), *Exchange Rate Regimes: Choices and Consequences* (2003), and *Currency Boards in Retrospect and Prospect* (2008).

Fabio Masini is Professor of Theories and History of International Political Economy at Roma Tre University and Secretary General of Robert Triffin International. His main areas of research concern the history of economics of regional and global economic and monetary integration. His last book was on *European Economic Governance: Theories, Historical Evolution, and Reform Proposals* (2022) and he recently edited *80 Years after Bretton Woods. Relaunching Multilateralism through Regional Monetary Unions* (2025).

Routledge Frontiers of Political Economy

Rethinking Economic Theories

A New Political Economy for the Biosphere

Tiago Cardao-Pito

Marx's Theory of Value at the Frontiers

Classical Political Economics, Imperialism and Ecological Breakdown

Güney Işıkara and Patrick Mokre

Reinterpreting Libertarianism

New Directions in Libertarian Studies

Edited by Łukasz Dominiak, Igor Wysocki, Stanisław Wójtowicz, and Dawid Megger

The Circular Economy and Institutional Change

Transformation in Theory and Practice

Yılmaz Kaplan

International Economic and Monetary Architecture at the Crossroads

Bretton Woods at 80

Edited by Atish R. Ghosh and Fabio Masini

On Value and Valuation

John Frow

Financial Stability, Risks, and Ecological Transition

Addressing Economic Challenges Under Global Uncertainty

Edited by Lyubov KLAPKIV and Faruk ÜLGİN

International Economic and Monetary Architecture at the Crossroads

Bretton Woods at 80

**Edited by Atish R. Ghosh and
Fabio Masini**

First published 2026
by Routledge
4 Park Square, Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon OX14 4RN

and by Routledge
605 Third Avenue, New York, NY 10158

Routledge is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an informa business

© 2026 selection and editorial matter, Atish R. Ghosh and Fabio Masini; individual chapters, the contributors

The right of Atish R. Ghosh and Fabio Masini to be identified as the authors of the editorial material, and of the authors for their individual chapters, has been asserted in accordance with sections 77 and 78 of the Copyright, Designs and Patents Act 1988.

All rights reserved. No part of this book may be reprinted or reproduced or utilised in any form or by any electronic, mechanical, or other means, now known or hereafter invented, including photocopying and recording, or in any information storage or retrieval system, without permission in writing from the publishers.

Trademark notice: Product or corporate names may be trademarks or registered trademarks and are used only for identification and explanation without intent to infringe.

British Library Cataloguing-in-Publication Data

A catalogue record for this book is available from the British Library

ISBN: 978-1-032-90202-9 (hbk)

ISBN: 978-1-032-90205-0 (pbk)

ISBN: 978-1-003-54654-2 (ebk)

DOI: 10.4324/9781003546542

Typeset in Sabon
by Apex CoVantage, LLC

Contents

<i>List of Figures</i>	<i>vii</i>
<i>List of Tables</i>	<i>viii</i>
<i>List of Contributors</i>	<i>ix</i>
Introduction: The Roads Not Taken	1
ATISH R. GHOSH AND FABIO MASINI	
1 Resource-Based International Currency: A History of a Failed Consensual Idea	7
NIKOLAY NENOVSKY	
2 Champions of Free Trade: The Peruvian Proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy at Bretton Woods	30
CÉSAR CASTILLO-GARCÍA	
3 Five Debates at the Creation of the International Monetary Fund	55
ATISH R. GHOSH	
4 Four Roads Not Taken at Bretton Woods: International Financial Proposals Ahead of Their Time	76
ERIC HELLEINER	
5 Bretton Woods Institutions and the Problem of Sovereign Defaults During the Early Days	93
JUAN FLORES ZENDEJAS	
6 Paths Not Taken with the American Payments Imbalance: Bureaucratic Responses in the IMF, OECD, and BIS, 1960 to 1971	112
KATHRYN C. LAVELLE	

7 SDRs and Development Finance: Uncovering the Early 1970s Debate	131
ALBERTINA NANIA	
8 A Failed Attempt Toward a Multilayered Safety Net: The Asian Monetary Fund	158
FABIO MASINI	
9 <i>A Feminist Opening?</i> Gender Mainstreaming at the International Monetary Fund and the World Bank	181
SALIHA METINSOY	
10 A Critical Road Not Taken? Assessing IMF <i>Inclusive Growth</i> and Frameworks of Technocratic Progressive Taxation in the Post-2008 Era	198
MARK HIBBEN	
11 Luxembourg's Role in Forging Post-War Financial Governance: Knowledge, Leadership, Diplomacy	223
ELENA DANESCU	
12 The Governance of the Bretton Woods Institutions: Ambitious but Failed Goals?	246
SUSANNA CAFARO	

Figures

5.1	Haircuts from debt settlements, 1937–1952.	106
10.1	“Income Inequality” in Working Papers and Staff Discussion Notes (2009–2024).	209
10.2	Title and abstract: “Inequality” in <i>AER</i> published papers by year (2006–2024).	211

Tables

5.1	International Bank for Reconstruction and Development Total Loans, 1945–1949	102
5.2	Debt Defaults’ Settlements, Export-Import Bank Loans and World Bank Loans	104
6.1	Overlapping State Members of the G10 Across International Organizations	123
9.1	Timeline of the IMF’s Adoption of Gender Mainstreaming	187
9.2	Timeline of the World Bank’s Adoption of Gender Mainstreaming	190
10.1	Center-Left Categories in <i>AEA Papers and Proceedings</i> (2010–2024)	212
10.2	Taxation and Spending Options: An IMF View	213
10.3	IMF Policy Advice to LICs in IMF Inequality Pilot	214
10.4	IMF Policy Advice to AE/EM Countries in IMF Inequality Pilot	215

Contributors

Susanna Cafaro is Professor of EU and International Law at Università del Salento, teaching and researching European Law, European economic and monetary union, EU external relations; global economic governance; democracy beyond the State, IMF & World Bank governance. She is Jean Monnet Chair on Legal Theory of European Integration as Supranational Democracy Model, Founder of the think tank The Group of Lecce for fair global governance, and member of the Bretton Woods Committee.

César Castillo-García, PhD in Economics from The New School for Social Research (NY), is Visiting Assistant Professor, Department of Economics, and College of Social Studies, Wesleyan University, Connecticut. He was a Visiting Scholar at the Paris School of Economics and the Weatherhead Research Cluster on Global Transformation, Harvard University. His research interests and publications focus on wealth and income inequality, the history of neoliberalism, the history of economics, and Latin American economic history.

Elena Danescu, PhD in Political Economics, is a Research Scientist at the Luxembourg Centre for Contemporary and Digital History, University of Luxembourg. Her academic focus and scholarly work cover European integration, Economic and Monetary Union, the history of economic thought, digital and oral history. She was awarded the 2020 Fernand Braudel Senior Fellowship in International Relations at the European University Institute and the 2024 Jean Monnet Fellowship at the Robert Schuman Centre for Advanced Studies.

Juan Flores Zendejas is Professor at the Department of History, Economics and Society and Head of the Paul Bairoch Institute of Economic History at the University of Geneva. He holds a PhD in Economics from Sciences Po Paris. His professional experience includes work for the Mexican Government, the Mexican Senate, the private sector, and international organizations. His research focuses on the history of financial crises and sovereign defaults, the evolution of international financial institutions, and issues of economic development and central banking in Latin America. He has published extensively in leading journals and edited volumes, contributing to debates on the long-term dynamics of global finance and development.

Atish R. Ghosh is the Historian of the International Monetary Fund. His recent work has focused on issues related to the stability of the international monetary system. He has published numerous influential studies on international policy coordination and exchange rate regimes, including three books: *Economic Cooperation in an Uncertain World* (1994), *Exchange Rate Regimes: Choices and Consequences* (2003), and *Currency Boards in Retrospect and Prospect* (2008).

Eric Helleiner, BA at Toronto, MSc and PhD at the London School of Economics, is Professor of Political Science at the University of Waterloo, Toronto, where he teaches International Political Economy, International Money and Finance, and History of Political Economy. He is the author of many books and essays on global history and economic institutions.

Mark Hibben is Associate Professor of Political Science (History department) at Saint Joseph's College of Maine. His interests include globalization and development, international political economy, human rights, and the politics of poverty and inequality. Among his latest works are *What Is Wrong with the IMF and How to Fix It, Polity* (2017) and *Poor States, Power, and the Politics of IMF Reform: Drivers of Change in the Post-Washington Consensus* (2016).

Kathryn C. Lavelle is Ellen and Dixon Long Professor in World Affairs. Her research explores global governance. She recently published *The Challenges of Multilateralism* (2020), and *Arctic Region, Reluctant Conquest: American Wealth, Power, and Security in the Arctic* is forthcoming.

Fabio Masini is Professor of Theories and History of International Political Economy at Roma Tre University and Secretary General of Robert Triffin International. His main areas of research concern the history of economics of regional and global economic and monetary integration. His last book was *European Economic Governance: Theories, Historical Evolution, and Reform Proposals* (2022) and recently edited *80 Years after Bretton Woods. Relaunching Multilateralism thorough Regional Monetary Unions* (2025).

Saliha Metinsoy, is an assistant professor of International Relations at the Erasmus University of Rotterdam. Her research focuses on global governance, international organisations, labour markets, and gender. Her work has previously appeared at Cambridge University Press, Oxford University Press, *Governance*, *European Journal of Political Research*, *International Studies Quarterly*, *Journal of European Public Policy*, and *Comparative European Politics*, among others. Dr. Metinsoy holds a PhD in Politics and International Relations from the University of Oxford.

Albertina Nania, a PhD candidate in Theories and Governance of European and Global Economic and Monetary Interdependence at the University of Roma Tre, is a research assistant to the Chair of Theories and History of International Political Economy. Her area of research is mainly focused

on the historical crossroads of the international monetary system and the intellectual influences that inspired its related debates.

Nikolay Nenovsky is a Bulgarian economist, working in the fields of monetary theory and policy, monetary history and history of economic thought. He has been Professor of Economics at the University of Picardie Jules Verne, LEFMI, Amiens, France, since 2012. Nenovsky is currently Associate Researcher at the Department of Theoretical Economics at SU HSE, and Associate Professor at UNWE, Sofia. Since June 2020, he has been a member of the Governing Council of the Bulgarian Central Bank.

2 Champions of Free Trade

The Peruvian Proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy at Bretton Woods

César Castillo-García

2.1 Introduction

In 1990, during an interview for the World Bank History Project, Aron *Ronnie* Broches, former General Counsel of the World Bank and Secretary of the Dutch delegation at the Bretton Woods Conference, reflected on the political economy orientations of some delegates at the Conference: “at Bretton Woods the lineup was very strange because the conservatives were the Canadians, the British (mostly), the Dutch, the Belgians, the Peruvians, and one other Latin American country” (Lewis et al. 1990, 2). Excluding John Maynard Keynes, whom Broches identified as the non-conservative voice among the British, this list of delegations highlights a diverse group of actors with heterogeneous interests and varying levels of influence in the postwar geopolitical landscape. However, this convergence of interests was shaped by the conditions of World War II and the postwar era, where the evolving international order created new points of alignment between Latin American representatives and technocrats from the developed world.

Recent global and economic history literature highlights the active involvement of Latin American delegates, who represented 19 of the 44 delegations, at the Bretton Woods Conference (Boughton 2004; Helleiner 2014; Thornton 2021). These studies demonstrated how the institutions established at the conference – the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the International Bank for Reconstruction and Development (IBRD) – were influenced by Latin American policymakers advocating for inward-looking growth strategies. In contrast to the trade liberalization agenda associated with the so-called Washington Consensus, the Mexican delegates promoted financial mechanisms explicitly designed to support industrialization and foster greater economic self-sufficiency in the region (Thornton 2014). Mexican experts had previously advanced ideas on international economic governance and Latin American participation in long-term financial schemes through the failed Inter-American Bank (IAB) project in 1939–1940. Far from being passive participants, the case of Mexico exemplified how the Latin American delegations actively shaped the eventual design of the Bretton Woods institutions.

Considering these facts, Broches' quotation is particularly compelling. Despite the developmentalist tone tolerated by US officials and championed by Latin American delegates, liberal voices from the region also emerged at Bretton Woods. Since the Great Depression, this small but active group of Latin American experts had opposed inward-looking growth policies in the intercontinental debate, which encompassed trade restrictions, exchange controls, credit expansion, and public investment. Moreover, they had supported previous efforts to establish multilateral trade agreements among the nations of the Americas. In some cases, inward-looking growth and free trade stances overlapped in their interest in trade policy as a component of stable economic growth (Fajardo 2022). Liberal technocrats from economies that were heavily dependent on raw material exports criticized the US government for its slow removal of tariffs during World War II. These advocates of free trade rejected state controls and interventionist policies – measures implemented in economies like Colombia and Mexico following the 1930s crisis and promoted by a new cohort of US *money doctors* in countries such as Paraguay (Helleiner 2017).

To add greater nuance to the history of Latin American experts at the Bretton Woods Conference, this chapter explores Peru's interventions and policy views on trade liberalization as a potential third pillar of the Bretton Woods system. Peruvian proponents of free trade were part of a *conservative bloc* that proposed the establishment of a Conference on Commercial Policy – an initiative that anticipated the ideas on free trade at the General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT) and has been largely overlooked in scholarly discussions connecting Bretton Woods to the evolution of trade liberalization (Palmer and Mavroidis 2004; McKenzie 2014). At Commission III of Bretton Woods, the Peruvian delegation played a leading role in efforts to reduce trade restrictions. This objective aligned with the interests of local capitalists engaged in trade and nations specialized in raw materials.

In this chapter, I engage with recent scholarship on the global history of Bretton Woods and draw on previously unexplored and scattered sources to examine the economic ideas that shaped the proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy. Section 2.2 compares the policy views of the Peruvian and Mexican delegations in the Inter-American debate, highlighting Peru's role as a forerunner in the flexibilization of exchange policy and its opposition to protectionism. Section 2.3 explores the development of Peruvian expertise in foreign economic policy, focusing on its efforts to promote trade agreements. Section 2.4 addresses Peru's response to the postwar era, led by the Commission of Foreign Economic Policy, and the debates surrounding the country's official stance on Harry D. White's stabilization plan. Section 2.5 examines the Atlantic City Pre-Conference, analyzing the pivotal role of the Mexican delegation in securing the inclusion of Commission III in the final Bretton Woods program. The final section analyzes the proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy, which Peruvian delegates described as a *third pillar* of Bretton Woods.

2.2 The Monetary Origins of the Peruvian Exceptionality

From the outset, Mexico emerged as one of the Latin American governments that influenced the international stabilization fund project drafted by US Treasury Department official White (Helleiner 2014). Mexican officials identified its limitations for the *weaker countries* of the Americas, noting the structural disadvantages these nations faced in trading with the United States under that framework. In referencing earlier debates on the creation of the IAB, a model of economic cooperation previously supported by White at the Inter-American Financial and Economic Advisory Committee in 1940, they sought to foster productive investment in developing countries. Their emphasis on economic sovereignty and development strengthened Mexico's leadership in following technical discussions with White, led by officials Antonio Espinosa de los Monteros and Rodrigo Gómez.¹

In contrast, Peru represented an opposing stance within the economic policy spectrum. When the Mexican proposal for the IAB was submitted, the Peruvian delegation opposed it (Thornton 2021, 73). Diplomat Felipe Barreda Laos, invoking the doctrine of Hispano-Americanism, argued that the Mexican project threatened the economic independence and organization of Hispanic America of being headquartered in Washington (Barreda Laos 1941). Barreda Laos also asserted that the IAB was merely an imitation of an earlier proposal he submitted as a Peruvian delegate at the 1933 Inter-American Conference in Montevideo.² His International American Bank was supposed to have its headquarters in Buenos Aires, looking to "organize the central banks of all American countries" and to reestablish trade among the Americas.³ In resembling the structure of the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú, the proposal was also designed to represent key industrial interests such as agriculture, livestock, mining, commerce, industry, and transport.⁴

Barreda Laos's proposal for an International American Bank reflected Peru's interest in championing trade liberalization across the Americas. At Montevideo, he declared, "the organization of world peace rests on the economic structure. . . . Unemployment, tariff wars, and the misery of nations are the most effective drivers of international conflicts and the greatest threats to peace" (Peruvian Government 1934, 52). Barreda Laos therefore emphasized the "economic, *commercial*, and financial character" of his Bank, which aimed to restore international trade through the creation of a new monetary unit backed by gold, silver, and *fiduciary* money. The proposal for an alternative currency within a multilateral bank was influenced by Peru's 1932 decision to abandon the gold standard. As Barreda Laos explained, the Peruvian delegation regarded the gold standard as "a factor of world economic risk" due to the imbalance between the global stock of gold and the world's credit requirements (Peruvian Government 1934, 53). Peru's enthusiasm for trade liberalization was further demonstrated in subsequent Inter-American Conferences, where it consistently advocated for the rejection of exchange controls and the limited use of tariffs. As Carlos García Gastañeta, a member

of the Lima Chamber of Commerce and a Peruvian delegate at the Lima Inter-American Conference of 1938, noted, Peruvian trade was not subject to any “restrictive regime, neither of limitation to import restrictions nor exchange controls” during the Great Depression (Octava Conferencia Internacional Americana 1938, 489).

Peru’s rejection of exchange controls and subsequent push for trade liberalization can be traced back to the government’s decision to abandon the gold standard. Facing a growing balance of payments deficit, technocrats at the Banco de Reserva del Perú launched South America’s first experiment in exchange rate liberalization and the lifting of convertibility between gold and the *Peruvian pound* in November 1929, a stark contrast to the protectionist measures adopted by other nations in the region. To reinstate convertibility, Manuel A. Olaechea, president of the Banco de Reserva, sought the expertise of Edwin Kemmerer, a renowned American *money doctor* known for his successful mission in Colombia (Gómez Betancourt 2016). The Kemmerer Mission introduced a comprehensive monetary and austerity program that led to the creation of the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú, reinstated the gold standard under a new currency, the *sol de oro*, and aimed to stabilize the economy while preventing debt default (Flores Zendejas 2021).

However, the reinstatement of the monetary regime was short-lived, as the Banco Central decided to lift gold convertibility again in May 1932 (Banco Central de Reserva del Perú 2000, 153). The decision was driven by pressures on the external balance and the unsustainability of foreign debt, which was largely held by the United States (Banco Central de Reserva del Perú 1997). A key influence behind this decision was Pedro G. Beltrán, the Banco Central’s Vice President and the primary representative of exporters. An alumnus of the London School of Economics and a cotton producer, Beltrán chaired the Committee for the Study of Exchange Rate Policy.⁵ He declared “the impossibility of ensuring the permanence of the gold standard,” citing excessive government spending and the “psychological” effects of political instability on confidence in the national currency.⁶ Óscar F. Arrús, Chief of the Economic Research Department at the Banco Central, supported the decision, arguing that currency depreciation functioned as an indirect mechanism to stabilize the balance of payments by lowering production costs and wages in national currency while preserving profit margins (Arrús 1937, 7).

Aligning with the financial analysis of Beltrán and Arrús, experts and business leaders advocated for trade liberalization to expand export markets for raw materials. Among them, agronomist José Antonio de Lavalle y García, leader of the Asociación de Ganaderos del Perú (The Cattle Breeders Business Association), argued that the crisis “has its origin and determining causes not within the limited political or economic sphere of a single country, but in that of the world” (Lavalle 1932a, 29). For Lavalle, the Great Depression resulted from an oversupply of goods, the misallocation of global capital flows, a lack of confidence in political and social changes, and the intensification of trade protectionism. He therefore proposed “the international revision of

customs tariffs and their reduction to the essential and required limits” (Lavalle 1932b, 11). Building on this idea, the Sociedad Nacional Agraria, the business association of agricultural exporters, established a Research Group on Commercial Relations Between Peru and Other Countries, which championed trade liberalization (Klinge 1932, 214). In this way, exporters and technocrats sought to prioritize trade agreements as a central goal of political economy, a shift that would later shape Peru’s position at Bretton Woods.

2.3 Expertise for a Free Trade Champion

During the interwar period, the Ministry of Foreign Affairs emerged as the central institution advancing the principles of free trade and raw material specialization advocated by Peruvian exporters in the 1930s. Following the abandonment of the gold standard, the Ministry facilitated a critical set of trade concessions with Chile and sought to establish a formal trade agreement, which was reaffirmed in March 1934. However, its implementation faced delays due to Chile’s attempts to modify its terms and difficulties on the Peruvian side in appointing a technical body for the negotiations. A Mixed Commission, composed of officials from both Peru and Chile, was tasked with overseeing the agreement and exploring further trade concessions. The Peruvian committee was finally appointed in December 1935 and included Pedro E. Paulet, former Consul in Yokohama, and Juan Chávez, Commercial Counselor at the Peruvian Embassy in Chile (Peruvian Government 1935b, 434–435).

This experience enabled Peru to develop expertise in trade and commercial affairs, a competency later demonstrated by its delegation at Bretton Woods. Before joining the Mixed Commission, Paulet – a trained engineer and aeronautics researcher – became Chair of the Department of Commerce, a technical office newly established as part of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs’ reform in July 1935. Recognizing the importance of statistics and specialized knowledge in commercial negotiations, this Department was tasked with studying “Peru’s trade relations with foreign countries and those among them,” preparing “information necessary for the negotiation of trade agreements, as well as for their modification, implementation, or termination,” and “organizing and carrying out Peru’s commercial advertising” (Peruvian Government 1935a, 15).

Although he did not advocate economic liberalism, Paulet had already demonstrated his aptitude for his new role. His mastery of economic analysis was evident in the works he produced for the Peruvian diplomatic service during the 1920s, as well as in his 1935 study *El Japón moderno y sus bases económicas* (*Modern Japan and Its Economic Foundations*). In this work, Paulet characterized Peru’s development strategy as weaker than Japan’s, emphasizing that the Japanese had successfully industrialized their economy (Paulet 1935, 424). The study also underscored his expertise in financial, economic, and commercial statistics – skills highly valued in the diplomatic service. Under Paulet’s leadership, the Department of Commerce developed

two significant statistical tools for trade negotiations and economic planning: the first official estimate of Peru's national income, published in the department's journal *Informaciones Comerciales, Económicas y Financieras del Perú* (*Commercial, Economic, and Financial Peruvian Information*) (Paulet 1938), and Peru's first balance of payments estimate. The latter was drafted by the department's Assistant Chief, lawyer Emilio G. Barreto, as part of his studies at the Universidad Nacional Mayor de San Marcos (Barreto 1936). Through the institutional and technical experience gained at the Ministry of Foreign Affairs, Barreto would ultimately join the Peruvian delegation at Bretton Woods as a technical adviser.

The development of World War II and its effects on the Inter-American context ultimately solidified Peru's position on economic liberalism at Bretton Woods. Drawing on the experience of the Peru-Chile Trade Agreement and leveraging the institutional framework established within the Ministry of Foreign Affairs, Peru intensified efforts to secure trade agreements with potential partners from the industrialized world. To use a Peruvian idiom, the government chose to "dance with its own handkerchief,"⁷ resisting the trend among its Latin American neighbors who implemented import substitution industrialization. In March 1937, Peru began negotiations with the United Kingdom, a country with which it maintained a trade surplus despite a persistent negative balance of payments (Barreto 1935a, 144). To support these efforts, the Ministry of Foreign Affairs established a Commission to Study the Trade Agreement with the United Kingdom, which included prominent free-trade advocates such as Carlos García Gastañeta and former Ministry of Finance Benjamín Roca.⁸

The following year, the Ministry of Foreign Affairs took significant steps in negotiating a Trade Agreement with the United States, a process that also influenced the institutionalization of Peruvian commercial policy. After initial exchanges with American Chargé d'Affaires Louis G. Dreyfus, the US official emphasized the necessity of incorporating the most-favored-nation clause into the final agreement discussed with Peru (Peruvian Government 1938, 477). To determine its position on the clause, the Peruvian government needed officials with experience in commercial and financial negotiations. By November 1939, Peru appointed Chávez – who had previously participated in the Peru-Chile Mixed Commission – as Commercial Counselor in the United States and named Beltrán as Special Commercial Delegate. Both Chávez and Beltrán observed that Peru would face few obstacles in adhering to the fundamental principles of the standard US trade agreement framework, apart from concerns regarding the most-favored-nation clause and the possibility of negotiating its waiver (US Government 1957, 611.2331/158).

The outbreak of World War II exposed Peru to medium-term external challenges, disrupting key trade relationships: Germany reduced its demand for Peruvian cotton products, the United Kingdom imposed restrictions on trade surpluses with Peru – primarily composed of cotton exports – and commercial trade with Japan was suspended (Barreto 1935b, 263). At the same

time, Peru faced mounting difficulties on multiple fronts, including substantial debts to the United States that had accumulated since the 1920s and a growing fiscal deficit, further exacerbated since the 1933 Peru–Colombia War. These pressures compelled the Peruvian government to prioritize securing stabilization funds while continuing trade agreement negotiations with the United States.

In Washington, the Peruvian Commercial Delegate Pedro Beltrán successfully negotiated with Warren Lee Pierson, President of the Export-Import Bank, a long-term loan of \$10 million in December 1940. In exchange, the Peruvian government committed to using the funds for the general import of American goods (US Government 1961, 823.51/1388a). Similar loans followed, further entrenching Peru's economic reliance on maintaining capital remittances and trade with the United States. The outcome of the negotiations with the Export-Import Bank ultimately enhanced Beltrán's standing as a key figure in international financial diplomacy, which would lead him to chair the Peruvian delegation at Bretton Woods.

These financial agreements not only deepened Peru's dependence on the United States (Kofas 1995) but also strengthened trade relations with the Americans and secured profits for Peruvian agricultural exporters. During the negotiations for the Peru–US trade agreement, the United States initially insisted on including the most-favored-nation clause. However, they ultimately agreed to waive this requirement if Peru granted preferential tariff advantages to neighboring countries under the terms of preferential tariffs of the Inter-American Financial and Economic Advisory Committee (US Government 1962, 611.2331/210b). Finally, the trade agreement was officially promulgated in May 1942 (Peruvian Government 1942b, 5).

2.4 Peruvian Free Trade Ideas and International Stabilization

In May 1941, the Peruvian Ministry of Foreign Affairs established the Commission of Foreign Economic Policy to represent the government in discussions and the formulation of treaties and trade agreements (Peruvian Government 1942a, 289). Chaired by Francisco Tudela y Varela – a diplomat, former Minister of Finance, and head of the Peruvian delegation at the 1933 London Economic Conference – the Commission also included Benjamín Roca, Clemente de Althaus (Vice President of the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú), and Carlos Alayza (former Minister of Development). Additionally, it oversaw an office that represented Peru before the Inter-American Financial and Economic Advisory Committee and included Roca, Alayza, and Pedro Beltrán as members (Peruvian Government 1942a, clxxv). This office replaced the representation previously held by engineer and financier Pedro J. M. Larrañaga Montero, who had served as Peru's delegate in Washington for these matters (Peruvian Government 1940, li).

The newly established Commission of Foreign Economic Policy redefined Peru's trade and industrial strategy, diverging from the vision previously set

by Pedro Paulet's Department of Commerce. While Paulet had conceived trade policy as a complement to industrialization and development, the new Commission, which absorbed his department, adopted a more liberal approach in its negotiations with Argentina, the United Kingdom, and Canada. Under the leadership of Tudela y Varela, the agency championed "the liberal doctrine of exchange, which is based on the elimination of barriers that hinder the normal supply of goods to the people." Tudela y Varela also promoted the acceptance of the most-favored-nation principle as a step toward "the universal establishment of free trade." His perspective further integrated the ideals of Inter-Americanism with economic liberalism, advocating for a broader economic policy to counteract "inter-hemispheric belligerence" and autarky (Peruvian Government 1942c, 33).

Within this institutional framework, the Peruvian government remained absent from the debate on postwar stabilization programs. Unlike Mexico, which actively contributed to shaping the proposed International Stabilization Fund, Peru's Ministry of Finance, headed by Julio L. East, declined to send specialists to present its position to White after receiving the first draft of his plan in March 1943.⁹ A week later, the government established the Peruvian Institute for the Study of Post-War Problems (Peruvian Government 1944, 27–28), which overlapped with Tudela y Varela's Commission of Foreign Economic Policy, though the latter had yet to make substantial contributions to the issue (Peruvian Government 1944, 194). In April, US Ambassador Henry Norweb, seeking to preempt British diplomatic advances in Peru, pressed the government for its stance on White's plan.¹⁰ During a meeting with East, the latter voiced strong opposition to the British proposal of appointing a single representative for all American republics in a future stabilization fund. By July, Norweb sought to persuade former Minister of Finance David Dasso – an MIT alumnus and former vice president of American Locomotive Works – to encourage Peru to send a technical delegation to Washington, arguing that Dasso's appointment "might be an influential factor in bringing the South American technical experts together." In September 1943, the Peruvian government received the second draft of White's plan, followed by the first draft of the IBRD in October. Yet, by the end of the year, East had still not appointed a technical delegation.

This situation did not indicate passivity on the part of the Peruvian government but rather its preference for the British international stabilization plan, aligning with its broader foreign economic policy – a strategy akin to *dancing with its own handkerchief*. In October 1943, the Peruvian government appointed a Special Commission to study the second draft of White's plan, which had been received by East. Led by Tudela y Varela, the expert group included former Minister of Finance Dasso and Banco Central de Reserva del Perú's Vice President de Althaus (Banco Central de Reserva del Perú 2000, 186). According to Tudela y Varela, the Peruvian group was more inclined to support Keynes's International Clearing Union, a stance shaped by Peru's position as a debtor country. He argued that the British plan provided a

“broader base to facilitate foreign exchange funds” and ample credit to stabilize the balance of payments (Tudela y Varela 1946, 5).

In December 1943, Tudela y Varela’s team defined the fundamental policy principles that Peru should uphold if it were to join an International Stabilization Fund – principles that would also guide the Peruvian delegation at Bretton Woods. The primary objective was to maintain a balance of payments surplus, which required that “the volume of exports, and its price, remain at a high level” and that financial flows “do not exceed export returns.” Additionally, the expert group advocated preserving the purchasing power of national currency – a monetarist approach to balance of payments management (Tudela y Varela 1946, 10). Furthermore, they proposed a paradoxical set of protective measures, including price controls, restrictions on luxury imports, tariffs, and fiscal austerity. These policies were largely reactive, aimed at safeguarding foreign exchange reserves, while prioritizing exports.

Due to the low profile of the expert group, outlets lamented the government’s lack of interest in contributing to the Inter-American debate on stabilization. However, former Peruvian officials remained actively engaged in this discussion. A notable example was the former representative of Peru at the Inter-American Financial and Economic Advisory Committee and close friend of Keynes, Larrañaga.¹¹ In the first meeting of the Advisory Committee, he presented the proposal for the Banco Panamericano, an alternative to the IAB (Larrañaga 1947, 194). As the sole opponent of the Mexican–White proposal, Larrañaga criticized its requirement for governments to enroll based on gold, arguing that this approach would deplete reserves and merely act as “a distributor of existing poverty” among Latin American central banks (Helleiner 2014, 68). His ideas closely aligned with Keynesian views on banking’s role in money creation through credit to stimulate production. Accordingly, he proposed that the Banco Panamericano function as a bank of central banks, allocating credit using the *Panamericano* – a fiat currency tied to a “commodity standard,” consisting of a weighted basket of commodities, including gold, and overseen by a group of experts (Larrañaga 1940, 134–137).

In late 1943, Larrañaga further developed his critique of the American and British stabilization plans, advocating for a credit theory of money that emphasized “creating” new financial resources (Larrañaga 1947, 194). He likened the American proposal to a commercial bank – an institution with insufficient resources to adequately serve its limited clientele, who were also its shareholders. Consequently, he believed White’s plan was vulnerable to the risk of a bank run. As an alternative, Larrañaga proposed the creation of what US Federal Reserve official Walter Gardner later termed a “Discretionary Gold Mine” – a type of investment trust capable of ex nihilo money creation, operating “without any initial assets other than its own Great [financial] Discretion” (Larrañaga 1947, 195). The legitimacy of its liabilities would rest on confidence in the assessed quality of its assets, evaluated not by profit-driven bankers but by a board of governors composed of social

planners. Regarding the British plan, Larrañaga criticized its failure to include complementary mechanisms to support the industrialization of Latin American, Asian, and African nations. Most notably, he underscored the need to reduce their dependence on exports as their primary source of foreign exchange (Larrañaga 1947, 202).

Despite these considerations, the Peruvian government largely disregarded Larrañaga's proposals, favoring a monetarist and liberal approach to postwar economic recovery. Officials remained committed to "dancing with its own handkerchief," prioritizing Peru's role as a raw material exporter in the early postwar period. In February 1944, the Commission of Foreign Economic Policy presented *Los Problemas Económicos de la Post-Guerra en Relación con el Perú* (*The Economic Problems of the Post-War in Relation to Peru*), a policy brief based on the expert group's December 1943 report. Tudela y Varela reiterated his opposition to White's plan, arguing that Peru could contribute neither gold nor foreign exchange to an international stabilization fund that required "the establishment of an international gold reserve." Instead, he advocated for a system "based on the opening of credits to offset balance of payments deficits" (Tudela y Varela 1944, 1364). To achieve stabilization, he proposed a multifaceted national strategy that combined fiscal and monetary austerity with the promotion of raw material exports. He also emphasized that any stabilization plan should be complemented by the expansion of extractive industries – such as mining, agriculture, and livestock – alongside coordination with the newly founded Inter-American Associations of Commerce and Production (Peruvian Government 1944, 200). Tudela y Varela's report provided a more sophisticated framework, incorporating ideas that would shape Peru's stance on trade at Bretton Woods.

Larrañaga opposed Tudela y Varela's report, critiquing it for being overly aligned with the liberal stance of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs. He argued that Peru's postwar economic challenges stemmed from demand-side constraints rather than supply-side limitations, reflecting his adherence to Keynesian and later post-Keynesian economic principles. In his view, Tudela y Varela's approach rendered "finance cease to play the role of fuel" for the economy (Larrañaga 1947, 142). While Tudela y Varela emphasized austerity and free trade, Larrañaga advocated for channeling national savings into capital investment, particularly to address the machinery needs of Peru's emerging industrial sector. Rejecting conservative fiscal policies, he called for a more robust Price Administration Office beyond Tudela y Varela's timid recommendations on price controls and proposed redirecting inflationary excess liquidity into public infrastructure through the development of domestic debt markets – policies aimed at fostering industrialization rather than allowing these financial resources to flow abroad to finance imports (Larrañaga 1947, 144).

Beyond the executive branch, other official bodies developed their own perspectives on stabilization. In September 1943, both the Chamber of Deputies and the Senate established a Post-War Commission to debate stabilization

plans, emphasizing inward-looking growth and business interests. Juvenal Monge, a deputy, manufacturer, and chair of the Post-War Commission in the Chamber of Deputies, supported efforts to stabilize the foreign exchange rate within a reformed gold standard, indirectly aligning with White's plan (Cámara de Diputados de Perú 1944, 43). However, Monge stressed that the settlement of foreign loans should be guided by a sense of "deep nationalism" to prevent excessive foreign capital concentration in Peru and to promote the "nationalization of enterprises." The most significant debates centered on the mining industry, with deputies and businessmen like Manuel B. Llosa advocating for a global agreement to stabilize world prices and boost Peruvian mining production (Cámara de Diputados de Perú 1945, 178). These ideas would later influence Peru's delegation at Bretton Woods.

At the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú, Óscar F. Arrús, Chief of the Economic Research Department, criticized existing stabilization plans for overlooking the long-term loans and investments needed to industrialize resource-constrained nations like Peru (Arrús 1943, 13). In doing so, Arrús anticipated what would later become key mandates of the IBRD. His viewpoint found support in Emilio Barreto, Banco Central's new technical adviser. Barreto had previously argued that "the majority of Latin American countries require long-term loans and, more importantly, capital for direct investments and adequate gold reserves to stabilize their exchange rates" (Barreto 1940, 216). These considerations would be brought forward by Barreto when he served as Peru's technical advisor at Bretton Woods.

2.5 Mexico's Proposal on Silver and the Creation of Commission III

Most of the final arrangements for the Bretton Woods Conference were made during the Atlantic City Pre-Conference in June 1944. After several bilateral negotiations between White and potential attendees, US Treasury Secretary Henry Morgenthau proposed a Monetary Conference for early May 1944, aimed at establishing both a monetary fund and, ideally, the IBRD.¹² However, British officials raised concerns about the tight timeline, and Keynes, critical of US multilateralism, complained about the logistical difficulties of inviting 21 countries – some of which, in his view, "have nothing to contribute" to the institutional design of the fund (Schuler and Canning 2019, 14). As a result, the American government only convened the monetary conference in July, following final consultations with China and the USSR. Invitations for the Atlantic City Pre-Conference were issued on June 10, bringing together 17 delegations, with Brazil, Chile, Cuba, and Mexico as the only Latin American participants.¹³ White scheduled preliminary discussions with country representatives for June 19 and convened the Agenda Committee on June 24.

The Atlantic City Pre-Conference thus set the procedural groundwork for Bretton Woods. At the Pre-Conference, discussions were based on the *Joint*

Statement by Experts on the Establishment of an International Monetary Fund, published in April 1944 (Schuler and Canning 2019, 8). The document largely reflected White's vision for the IMF, underscoring the United States' dominant position as the world's leading international creditor at the end of World War II and one of the few belligerent nations whose territory remained unscathed. The conference also introduced new elements that had not been previously considered in detail, such as the creation of the IBRD. British officials initially viewed the latter as a superfluous institution, given the scale and scope of Keynes's proposed International Clearing Union. However, Morgenthau insisted on its inclusion in the final tentative plan (Helleiner 2014).

Notably, the Atlantic City Pre-Conference set the stage for the Mexican delegation to play a pivotal role at Bretton Woods, as Mexico had been strengthening its position through a series of informal meetings with White in 1943. By then, American officials recognized the crucial role of the Mexican delegates in shaping the IMF proposal, a point conveyed to Morgenthau by Mexican Minister of Finance Eduardo Suárez, who confirmed that the second draft of White's plan incorporated provisions proposed by Mexican officials Antonio Espinosa de los Monteros and Rodrigo Gómez. In late May 1944, White asked the US Ambassador to Mexico to informally approach Suárez and request him to send technical advisers to Atlantic City, which led to Espinosa and Gómez representing Mexico at the Pre-Conference.¹⁴

During the Preliminary Meeting of the Agenda Committee, Mexico was appointed as rapporteur for Sub-Committee 3 on the Organization and Management of the Monetary Conference within the Steering Committee. In this sub-committee, Espinosa advocated for the interests of so-called smaller nations, proposing to revise provisions on proportional representation, voting, and quotas in the final draft of the fund. Additionally, he opposed the Soviet delegate's proposal to use gold as a monetary unit, instead supporting the continued use of the US dollar.¹⁵

On June 24, Espinosa was appointed one of the Vice-Chairmen of the Agenda Committee, a role that positioned Mexico in alignment with non-hegemonic nations. That same day, he submitted a *Memorandum on Silver*, following a campaign he had publicized in Mexican newspapers just before the Pre-Conference.¹⁶ While Mexico had long advocated for silver and bimetallism as a response to the global economic crisis, its position also reflected its interests as the world's largest silver producer. Espinosa proposed adding a provision to the section on *Transactions of the Fund*, stating that "the Fund shall determine the proper role and function of silver within the international monetary system."¹⁷ Aligning with raw material producers, he joined the Brazilian and Australian delegates on June 26 in defending provisions that would grant countries access to 33.33% of their quota to manage balance of payments fluctuations. On June 27, he took a firm stance on trade policy, asserting that "the Fund has no jurisdiction in matters of commercial policy, which must be addressed through the appropriate mechanisms established in commercial treaties." Finally, on June 29, Mexico endorsed India's proposal for the Fund

“to assist the fuller utilization of the resources of underdeveloped countries,” reflecting the broader principles of full employment.¹⁸

Discussions on silver, the stabilization of international prices, international trade, and full employment led to the creation of Commission III at Bretton Woods, chaired by Mexico. This commission also provided a platform for the Peruvian delegation to introduce its proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy. Commission III addressed complementary arrangements beyond Commission I (on the IMF) and Commission II (on the IBRD). On June 26, a Steering Committee dealing with the agenda of Bretton Woods established Commission III on “other forms of international monetary cooperation,” describing it as “the clearing place for every other proposal outside Fund and Bank.” On June 29, Keynes, chairman of the Agenda Committee at Atlantic City, confirmed this decision. From six proposed drafts for the Conference structure, the final outline included two sub-committees: “Monetary Use of Silver” and “Other Monetary Resolutions.”¹⁹ Ultimately, it was decided not to predefine sub-committees for Commission III, allowing them to be formed at its first meeting (US Government 1948, 7).²⁰ In this way, the participation of the Mexican delegation ensured that the concerns of developing nations like Peru and other raw material producers were addressed at Bretton Woods.

While Commission III was being established at Atlantic City, the Peruvian government was finalizing its delegation. This group, shaped by expertise developed within the Peruvian Ministry of Foreign Affairs, played a key role in representing Peru’s liberal stance at Bretton Woods. Peru confirmed its participation on June 3, and by June 14, the Secretary of the Conference had informed White. Several of these Peruvian delegates had been involved in technical discussions at the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú on the *Joint Statement by Experts*, led by Minister of Finance Julio East since April 1944.²¹ The newly appointed Ambassador Pedro Beltrán was to chair the delegation. He was joined by legislators from the Congressional Post-War Commissions: Juvenal Monge, Manuel Llosa, Andrés Dasso, and Alberto Álvarez-Calderón. Other key members of the delegation included Juan Chávez, the Commercial Counselor at the Peruvian Embassy, Álvaro Rey de Castro, Secretary of the Peruvian Embassy, and technical adviser Emilio Barreto, former Assistant Chief at the Peruvian Department of Commerce.²² Given its composition, the Peruvian delegation stands as an exception to the claim made by Palmetier and Mavroidis (2004) about the absence of representatives from Ministries of Foreign Affairs at Bretton Woods.

The Peruvian delegation became involved in the selection of Mexico as the chair of Commission III at Bretton Woods. Upon arrival at the conference, Peruvian chairman Beltrán was appointed to the Committee on Nominations (US Government 1948, 68). At the Plenary Session on July 1, Beltrán’s committee received a nomination proposal for Mexico’s Suárez – who was also one of the Vice Presidents of the conference – to chair Commission III, as well as Peru’s Llosa to chair Committee 4 on “Forms and Status of the

Fund” within Commission I (US Government 1948, 106). Following these nominations, Suárez put forward Morgenthau as president of the Conference, citing the “unfailing devotion of his country to the cause of monetary stability” (US Government 1948, 76). As is customary in such diplomatic events, Morgenthau’s nomination was unanimously accepted, along with the designations for committee positions across the other commissions. Later, Beltrán called for a vote on the motion to elect the members of Commission III, including Suárez’s chairmanship, which was approved by a majority vote (US Government 1948, 109).

In an unexpected turn, the open-ended structure of Commission III at Bretton Woods, combined with Mexico’s leadership, created an opportunity to discuss additional provisions. The first meeting of Commission III took place on the afternoon of July 3, during which Suárez outlined the Commission’s nature and scope (US Government 1948, 100). While emphasizing the Commission’s open-ended nature, Suárez did not hesitate to promote Mexican bimetallism, telling delegates that “some concern has also been expressed about the international monetary functions of silver, for it is felt that the habits and needs of the peoples who continue to use it have not been thoroughly considered and appraised” (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 535). Notably, he made this statement just one day after 25 US Western senators from silver-producing states submitted a letter to American president Roosevelt declaring their support for the inclusion of silver in the IMF – an initiative strongly opposed by the US delegation at Bretton Woods.²³ Ultimately, Poland’s delegate proposed the creation of an Agenda Committee to identify specific issues for discussion and present them at the second meeting, a proposal seconded by Suárez as chair.

Commission III became a crucial forum for incorporating additional points into the stabilization agenda, two of which were concerned with exporters’ interests. During the second meeting on July 10, ten new proposals were introduced by the reporting delegate (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 535). Based on them, the Agenda Committee recommended the formation of three ad-hoc committees to facilitate discussion: Committee 1 on “Use of Silver for International Monetary Purposes,” Committee 2 on “Enemy Assets, Looted Property, and Related Matters,” and Committee 3 on “Recommendations on Economic and Financial Policy, the Exchange of Information, and Other Means of Financial Cooperation” (US Government 1948, 435). Notably, Peru chaired Committee 1, and Chile Committee 3 (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 920). The committee’s structure reflected the diverse nature of the proposals received and the business objectives of the delegations at Commission III. The list of topics included Mexico’s plans for silver as an additional monetary unit of the IMF and the status of earmarked gold; Australia’s proposal for an international agreement to maintain high levels of employment; and Peru’s Conference on Commercial Policy.

The question of silver emerged in Commission III following Mexico’s unsuccessful attempts to prioritize it in the final arrangements of the

IMF. Five days before Mexico submitted its proposal to Commission III, its delegates once again advocated for silver. Mexican delegate Espinosa de los Monteros sought to include bimetallism on behalf of the so-called silver-hoarding countries. He attempted to add this provision to the final IMF agreement before Committee 2 of Commission I (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 409).²⁴ The provision aimed to benefit nations with limited gold reserves by allowing the Fund to “extend credit to those nations for [their] silver over and above the normal credit extended” to other nations (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 411). The Vice-Chairman of Committee 2, Canadian economist William Mackintosh, supported the proposal, as did the Peruvian delegation, which included Ambassador Beltrán, Deputy Monge, and Technical Adviser Barreto.²⁵ They backed Espinosa’s motion, while the delegations of India and France opposed it. Ultimately, the proposal was referred to an ad hoc committee, where France, as chair, decided to “defer action pending informal discussions” among delegates (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 413).

In Commission III, the silver proposal created an opportunity for collaboration between Mexico and Peru, two Latin American countries with seemingly divergent development views but common interests as mining exporters. At the time, Peru was the world’s fourth-largest silver producer, following Mexico, the United States, and Canada. Despite differing approaches, the Mexican proposal aligned with Peru’s goal of expanding mining exports – an objective shaped by its foreign economic policy and efforts to access new markets, a topic previously discussed by Peruvian delegate Llosa at the Congressional Post-War Commission (Cámara de Diputados de Perú 1945, 187).²⁶ During the third meeting of Commission III on July 20, Llosa emphasized Peru’s interest in incorporating silver into the Fund, underscoring its historical significance and “psychological prestige.” Drawing from the arguments of 25 US Western senators, he justified silver’s inclusion due to the “insufficiency of media for the settlement of international balances” (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 561). Peru’s support for Mexico’s silver proposal was reciprocated when Mexico endorsed Peru’s position on commercial policy at Commission III.

2.6 Trade Liberalization and Peru’s Conference on Commercial Policy

In addition to reflecting the goals of Peru’s foreign economic policy, Peru’s stance on trade echoed Antonio Espinosa de los Monteros’ earlier position during the final stage of the Atlantic City Pre-Conference. Espinosa had advocated for addressing trade policy through commercial treaties. Following this approach, Peru’s proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy – the only proposal focused on trade – was presented in Commission III:

Whereas the International Monetary Fund is devised to maintain orderly exchange arrangements and to lend help to member countries

by supplying their needs of foreign exchange of a temporary nature not due to fundamental disequilibrium in their international balance of payments;

Whereas the Fund is not meant to deal with the basic economic factors which affect the rate of employment and production in the world at large;

Whereas the Bank will, as its name implies, act only in the fields of Reconstruction and Development;

Whereas the successful operation of these two institutions is dependent on the smooth development of economic phenomena free from crises of a disruptive nature; and,

Whereas this condition requires the relaxation of artificial trade barriers to attain greater freedom of commerce; the provision of adequate markets for staple products on which so many national economies depend; and the attainment and maintenance of a high degree of employment and production which will raise the standards of life and conditions of labor everywhere, which must be one of the primary objects of economic policy;

Resolved that for the successful attainment of the objects to be pursued by the International Monetary Fund and the Bank for Reconstruction and Development a conference of the United and Associated Nations on commercial policy be called to make recommendations for the achievement of greater freedom of commerce and for the orderly marketing of staple products; and that, in the sense of this conference, the nations here assembled should pursue policies to promote the fuller employment of the nations' resources both of men and materials.

(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 549–550)

The proposal resonated with the other Latin American nations in Commission III, encouraging the presentation of alternative proposals. Peru's concerns about "world crises" and the need for "adequate markets for staple products" had already been raised by Brazil and Cuba in Atlantic City. In Commission III, Brazil suggested holding an additional conference to address commodity price stabilization (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 551). The Peruvians also inspired Bolivia's René Ballivián and Cuba's Eduardo Montoulieu to present their own submissions. Ballivián pushed for reducing trade barriers and establishing international commodity price agreements, while Cuba called for higher living standards through freer trade and better marketing of raw materials (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 552–553). In support, Chairman Eduardo Suárez proposed integrating these submissions into Committee 3 on "Recommendations on Economic and Financial Policy, the Exchange of Information, and Other Means of Financial Cooperation." The Chilean delegation, while advocating for industrialization, also suggested an alternative focused on "disposing of the staple products of economically weaker nations" (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 941).

The Conference on Commercial Policy reflected Peru's expertise and ideological stance on foreign economic policy, developed over the preceding decade. It primarily conveyed concerns that the economic and financial agreements reached at Bretton Woods might not sufficiently mitigate the risks of external shocks. Peruvian delegate Emilio Barreto argued that the effective functioning of both the IMF and the IBRD required an international framework of cooperation based on "general principles of trade and foreign investment aimed at equilibrating the balance of payments" (Barreto 1945, 165). On July 17, Peruvian delegate Juan Chávez presented a statement titled *On Definite Economic Action Required to Create Conditions Necessary to Make Possible Attainment of the Specific Purposes of the Fund and of the Bank*, which, according to *The New York Times*, demanded a World Trade Plan that "expressed the sentiments of many delegates."²⁷ Appealing to foreign investors, the Peruvian proposal was later described by *Barron's* financial magazine as a pragmatic stance, challenging the misconception "that there will be no more great depressions" after World War II.²⁸ The statement affirmed Peru's support for international economic cooperation to promote "general welfare and to raise the standards of living of the people everywhere," a recurring theme in Beltrán's speeches, and was grounded in Peru's contributions to the Inter-American Conferences of Montevideo (1933) and Rio de Janeiro (1942).²⁹ Based on Barreto's analysis of the balance of payments, Chávez's declaration stated that the proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy aimed

to facilitate exchange transactions and to prevent unnecessary disruption in the exchange relationships between the different currencies. . . . In the years before the war the principal problem was a strong and persistent current which kept in the red the balance of payments of the debtor countries. . . . It was a continuous flow in one direction. It is true that this flow was greatly intensified by transfers of capital and 'hot money'. But apart from these, if account be only taken of the other items which enter into the balance of payment, there had been a definite trend for quite a number of years so that, even if transfers of capital had been controlled, a deficit would have been shown by the debtor countries. *The Fund is not meant to cope with sustained movements of this type.*

(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1034)

The Peruvian declaration also underscored the expansion of trade as a crucial measure for strengthening a nation's exchange position, particularly in the face of international economic dependence. These concerns had been raised during the Congressional Post-War Commission in March 1944. For instance, the General Manager of the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú, Clemente de Althaus, informed the congressional group led by deputy Juvenal Monge about the pressures on the trade balance caused by US protectionism

(Cámara de Diputados de Perú 1945, 125). Having previously engaged with these issues, Monge saw them framed by Chávez as follows:

Now for many new countries, of which Peru happens to be one, the existence of such a problem is a [p. 743] serious matter. England has been the only market on which they could rely in good or bad times, from the very beginning of their trading history, one might say. *If this now ceases to be so, where else will they be able to sell freely? Other possible markets still remain closed. Nothing seems to point yet to their being open in the reasonably immediate future.* At least a very large proportion of the new countries with a simple economy based on the export of raw materials would be in this same predicament.

(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1036).

Ultimately, the Peruvian proposal reflected concerns over the Bretton Woods institutions' inability to effectively address economic cycles and sustain long-term employment and production while denying industrialization. These issues had been central to the advocacy of Peruvian raw material exporters, such as José Antonio de Lavalle y García and Beltrán, and reflected Peru's Banco Central's recent experience of the Great Depression:

If a depression were to come, the lot of the small, *raw materials exporting countries* might indeed be a very difficult one. It was so during the thirties, and no one can blame them for being afraid that it may be so again. Supposing they struggle, as some did last time, to maintain stable their rate of exchange by a *deflationary policy* at home. This led to a general stagnation in economic life which caused unemployment, thus further depressing the standard of living of the people. The only thing left to them then was *to go off the gold standard and let the rate of exchange take its [p. 745] course.*

(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1037)

It might be said that the solution lies in the diversification of the economies of new countries, so that they also become industrialized. There is no question that everything possible should be done in that respect and the Bank for Reconstruction and Development may do a great deal of good in this field, but the *young industries* will be in need of a certain amount of protection from the sort of unfair competition that large manufacturers in the great industrial centers can carry on to prevent them from developing from the very start.

(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1039)

Finally, Chávez's declaration advocated for expanding markets and reducing trade barriers as fundamental to successful monetary cooperation – ideas that had already been articulated by the Commission of Foreign Economic

Policy and examined by the Peruvian Special Commission for the Study of the Fund on October 1943,

the question seems to be whether the International Monetary Fund [p. 747] or the World Bank can stand on its feet unless adequate steps are taken at the same time *to have freer trade in the world, to have proper markets for the staple products on which so many national economies depend, and to assure full production and employment and prevent the occurrence of severe depressions*. In other words, whether it (p. 7) is possible to have successful monetary cooperation without setting up, at the same time, a comprehensive scheme that will cover the *basic economic and financial ground* on which monetary matters rest.
(Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1040)

In considering the various alternative proposals on commercial policy, Committee 3's chairman from Chile reaffirmed several points raised by the Peruvian delegation in a summary statement but did not call for immediate action from the countries at Bretton Woods. On July 20, the Committee 3's resolution aimed to reach an agreement to "reduce obstacles to international trade" and to "bring about the orderly marketing of staple commodities" (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 574). Additionally, it seemed connected to Article I of IMF's final agreement and resonated with delegations from industrial countries such as Canada, where delegate Louis S. St. Laurent had previously emphasized the need to agree on measures for the "reduction in the barriers to trade expansion" before the Canadian House of Commons (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 1107). However, Peruvian delegate Manuel Llosa expressed dissatisfaction with the committee's half-hearted approach, which did not step toward convening a dedicated conference on commercial problems at Bretton Woods (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 580).

Although more declarative than effective, Peru's stance at Bretton Woods set a largely forgotten precedent for trade liberalization – one that would later be championed by Peruvian technocrats. In December 1944, Peruvian ambassador Beltrán urged the United States to reduce tariffs, arguing at the American Institute of Banking that lowering trade barriers would improve the living standards of the American people.³⁰ That same month, the Congressional Post-War Commission presented its preliminary report, emphasizing that the Peruvian delegation attending the 1945 Pan-American Economic Conference should advocate for the implementation of the Conference on Commercial Policy, at least on a regional scale (Cámara de Diputados de Perú 1945, 68). Barreto, who had joined the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú, later noted that these Peruvian ideas influenced the decision to study trade and financial liberalization at the 1945 Inter-American Technical Economic Conference (Barreto 1945, 166).

In June 1948, Monge proposed an Inter-American trade agreement as one of the pillars of Latin American development at the first meeting of the

Economic Commission for Latin America.³¹ Although these Bretton Woods delegates emphasized trade liberalization as an important economic tool, Peru did not join the US-led GATT until 1951, owing to challenges stemming from the 1948 currency crisis and the refusal of Peru's new military junta (US Government 1976, 394.31/8-250). This may explain why Peru's stance on trade liberalization at Bretton Woods remains largely overlooked by historians.

2.7 Conclusion

In this chapter, I traced the genealogy of the Peruvian proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy, which Peruvian delegates introduced as the third pillar of the Bretton Woods institutional framework. The proposal marked the culmination of a national experience that later became an international blueprint for promoting liberalization in countries rejecting inward-looking growth strategies. In Latin America, the Great Depression and World War II led to a decline in external demand from the capitalist core, prompting the reintroduction of trade protections after the war. In this context, nations reliant on raw materials saw market expansion and free trade agreements as the best path to economic recovery. The proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy stemmed from the efforts of Peru to expand export markets and boost trade in response to the failure to stabilize commodity prices. As a result, it gained support not only from other raw material exporters but also from more industrialized Latin American nations like Brazil and Chile. Ultimately, the Peruvian proposal at Bretton Woods can be reinterpreted as a mechanism for laying the institutional groundwork for exporters' capital profitability instead of national sovereignty.

While the proposal for a Conference on Commercial Policy did not lead to immediate action, the discussion of trade policy as a fundamental aspect of monetary cooperation remains a key institutional element for understanding the nuances of the Latin American debate on international stabilization in the postwar period. As the crisis created balance of payments disequilibria, most nations turned to industrialization and protectionist trade policies – such as tariffs, exchange controls, and quotas – as the optimal toolkit for economic recovery and development. However, their foreign exchange requirements depended on international trade. As a result, many were concerned with re-establishing trade relations with other nations after World War II. A notable example of this dynamic was the convergence of interests between Peru and Mexico regarding silver at Bretton Woods, despite their contrasting policy approaches to economic development.

The Peruvian case also demonstrated how the development of economic expertise was pivotal in the persistence of free trade ideas. Within the Inter-American conferences in Lima, Montevideo, and Rio de Janeiro, Peruvian diplomats leveraged their domestic political position to implement economic policies that prioritized exporters. Alongside the Banco Central de Reserva

del Perú's resistance to exchange controls, foreign economic policy – largely controlled by the Ministry of Foreign Affairs – emerged as Peru's primary tool for securing economic recovery, which led to the establishment of a dedicated commission to manage trade agreements. The delegation sent to Bretton Woods included technocrats like Pedro Beltrán, Emilio Barreto, and Juan Chávez, whose views aligned with the belief that responding to economic downturns required this expansion of trade. In this light, the proposal for the Conference on Commercial Policy can be seen as an overlooked foundation for the institutionalization of international trade – one later overshadowed by the hegemonic influence of the United States and Canada in shaping the more enduring GATT.

Notes

- 1 IMF Archives, Bretton Woods Conference Collection (BWC), Bretton Woods Conference Files, Country Files, Greece-Netherlands, Mexico. Find BWC in <https://archivescatalog.imf.org/Details/archive/110042780>.
- 2 *The New York Times* (NYT), November 13, 1933.
- 3 Although Barreda Laos defended Hispano-Americanism, the proposal to establish the International American Bank in Buenos Aires likely aligned with the UK's interest in maintaining its influence in South America.
- 4 NYT, December 6, 1933.
- 5 Banco Central de Reserva del Perú – Minutes of the Board (BCRP), Acta num. 39, January 13, 1932.
- 6 BCRP, Acta num. 57, April 1, 1932.
- 7 The phrase “dancing with their own handkerchief” (“a bailar con su propio pañuelo”) is a Peruvian Spanish idiom that means “to be responsible for her own expenses.” The phrase evokes a traditional Peruvian coastal dance called *mariñera*, in which each dance partner uses a handkerchief in their hand. This is also a metaphor for Peru's solitary position in maintaining free trade as a principle of development in Latin America.
- 8 Peruvian Government, Supreme Resolution N° 234, March 29, 1937.
- 9 BWC, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Correspondence, 1942, 1943, 1944 (January-June), Folder 19, Letter from H. D. White to Leo S. Rowe.
- 10 BWC, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Country Files, Neutrals-Philippines, Peru.
- 11 Larrañaga was a prominent Peruvian civil engineer who held various diplomatic posts, such as serving as secretary of the Peruvian delegation at the Paris Conference in 1919, as second secretary and Commercial Attaché at the Peruvian embassy in London from 1920 to 1924, and as Peruvian Chargé d'Affaires in Sweden from 1924 to 1925. His intellectual interactions with Keynes began in 1931 when Larrañaga sent copies of his articles, published in the conservative Spanish newspaper *La Época*, to Keynes. In July 1931, Keynes invited Larrañaga to spend a weekend at his country house in Tilton, where they discussed Larrañaga's critiques of Keynes's defense of the quantity theory of money in *The Treatise on Money* (Larrañaga 1947, 270). Six months later, Larrañaga shared his analysis of the Great Depression, titled *First Lessons of the Economic Earthquake*, with Keynes. With Keynes's endorsement, Larrañaga was able to publish his book *Gold, Glut & Government* with George Allen & Unwin in April 1932.
- 12 Multilateral efforts to finalize the design of an International Stabilization Fund had begun earlier, with a meeting convened by White in Washington from June 15 to 17, 1943 (Boughton 2021). The 19 delegations attending were Australia,

- Belgium, Brazil, Canada, China, Czechoslovakia, Ecuador, Egypt, France, Luxembourg, Netherlands, Norway, Paraguay, Philippines, Poland, the United Kingdom, the United States, Venezuela, and the Soviet Union (BWC, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Meetings, Group on Monetary Plans, List of Delegates). The agenda included discussions on exchange rate policy, composition and quotas of the fund, voting power, the access to resources of the fund, and the conditions of membership (BWC, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Meetings, Group on Monetary Plans, Agenda).
- 13 Other countries represented at the Atlantic City Pre-Conference included Australia, Belgium, Canada, Czechoslovakia, Greece, India, the Netherlands, Norway, and the French Committee of National Liberation (Schuler and Canning 2019, 19).
 - 14 See footnote 1.
 - 15 US National Archives (NARA), General Records of the Department of the Treasury, Box 1, Folder A-9, Atlantic City Minutes and Meeting.
 - 16 NARA, Records of International Conferences, Commissions, and Expositions, Box 2, "Mexican preconference silver promotion".
 - 17 NARA, General Records of the Department of the Treasury, Box 1, Folder A-3, Atlantic City documents F1-F5.
 - 18 NARA, General Records of the Department of the Treasury, Box 1, Folder A-9, Atlantic City Minutes and Meeting.
 - 19 NARA, General Records of the Department of the Treasury, Box 1, Folder A-5, Atlantic City all flimsies.
 - 20 BWC, Ansel F. Luxford, [Bank] Bretton Woods Conference, Organization, Folder 2, Organization of the Conference.
 - 21 The participants in the discussions at the Banco Central de Reserva del Perú included members of the Special Commission on Stabilization Plans (Tudela y Varela, former Minister of Finance Dasso, and the General Manager of the Banco Central Clemente de Althaus), members of the Congressional Post-War Commission, as well as economist Pedro Beltrán (Barreda Moller 1944).
 - 22 BWC, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Bretton Woods Conference Files, Joint Statements, Country Cables (Nicaragua-Venezuela), Peru.
 - 23 NYT, July 3, 1944; July 4, 1944.
 - 24 Before Committee 2 on the Operation of the Fund, which was part of Commission I, Espinosa de los Monteros proposed adding Provision E after Article III, Section 2 of the IMF's Joint Statement. The proposal stated that "a silver-hoarding member country shall be entitled to buy from the Fund another member's currency in exchange for its own currency, in an amount not exceeding 80 percent of the gold value of that country's silver hoardings (. . .)" (Schuler and Rosenberg 2024, 744).
 - 25 Bolivia, another Andean country and a significant silver producer, also supported the proposal. See *The Scotsman*, July 7, 1944.
 - 26 Llosa had business interests in mining production and served as an institutional representative of the industry. He was the owner of Vinchos Company Ltd., a silver mine, a professor of mining methods at the Peruvian Escuela Nacional de Ingenieros, and a member of the American Institute of Mining and Metallurgical Engineers.
 - 27 NYT, July 19, 1944.
 - 28 *Barron's National Business and Financial Weekly*, vol. 24, num. 30.
 - 29 *Partido Nacional Agrario. Circular de la Junta Central Directiva a las Juntas Provinciales*, April 1936, Beltrán-Kropp Papers, Drexel Library, Saint-Joseph's University Philadelphia.
 - 30 NYT, December 13, 1944.
 - 31 United Nations Digital Library, Economic Commission for Latin America and the Caribbean (ECLAC), E/CN.12/20, *Statement by the Chairman of the Peruvian Delegation, Juvenal Monge*, https://digitallibrary.un.org/record/806394/files/E_CN.12_20-EN.pdf?ln=en

References

- Arrús O. 1937. Significación de la balanza comercial. *Revista de la Facultad de Ciencias Económicas. Universidad Mayor de San Marcos*, 8, 4–9.
- Arrús O. 1943. La encuesta oportuna. El Perú en la Economía de la Post-Guerra. Sugerencias, Debate, Planificación. *Revista de Economía y Finanzas*, 22(127–132), 11–15.
- Banco Central de Reserva del Perú. 1997. *La misión Kemmerer en el Perú. Informes y propuestas*, Vol. I. Lima, Banco Central de Reserva del Perú.
- Banco Central de Reserva del Perú. 2000. *El Banco Central: Su historia y la economía del Perú 1821–1992*, Vol. I. Lima, Banco Central de Reserva del Perú.
- Barreda Laos F. 1941. *¿Hispanoamérica en guerra?* Buenos Aires, Linari y Cía.
- Barreda Moller J. 1944. La Conferencia Monetaria y Financiera de Bretton Woods. *Revista de Hacienda*, 20, 709–729.
- Barreto E. 1935a. El tratado comercial con Inglaterra. *Revista de Economía y Finanzas*, 5(27), 143–145.
- Barreto E. 1935b. Nuestro intercambio comercial y el sistema de cuotas. *Revista de Economía y Finanzas*, 5(29–30), 261–265.
- Barreto E. 1936. La balanza internacional de pagos peruana correspondiente a 1932–1933. *Banco Central de Reserva del Perú. Boletín Mensual*, 50, 5–7.
- Barreto E. 1940. El proyecto Banco Internacional Americano. *Mercurio Peruano*, 22(158), 209–222.
- Barreto E. 1945. *Problemas monetarios de Postguerra*. Mexico D.F., Fondo de Cultura Económica.
- Boughton J. 2004. New Light on Harry Dexter White. *Journal of the History of Economic Thought*, 26(2), 179–195, <https://doi.org/10.1080/1042771042000219028>
- Boughton J. 2021. *Harry White and the American Creed: How a Federal Bureaucrat Created the Modern Global Economy (and Failed to Get the Credit)*. New Haven, Yale University Press.
- Cámara de Diputados de Perú. 1944. Problemas de Post-guerra. *Boletín bibliográfico publicado por la Biblioteca de la Cámara de Diputados*, 1(2), 37–57.
- Cámara de Diputados de Perú. 1945. *Comisión de Problemas de Post-Guerra. I. Conclusiones Preliminares de los Trabajos de la Comisión. II. Resumen de las Actas de las Sesiones en el Bienio 1943–1944*. Lima, Librería e Imprenta Gil, S.A.
- Fajardo M. 2022. *The World That Latin America Created*. Cambridge, MA, Harvard University Press.
- Flores Zendejas J. 2021. Money Doctors and Latin American Central Banks at the Onset of the Great Depression. *Journal of Latin American Studies*, 53(3), 429–463, <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022216X21000444>
- Gómez Betancourt R. 2016. Edwin Walter Kemmerer (1875–1945). In G. Faccarello and H. Kurz (eds.) *Handbook on the History of Economic Analysis Volume I*. Cheltenham, UK and Northampton, US, Edward Elgar Publishing, 449–451.
- Helleiner E. 2014. *Forgotten Foundations of Bretton Woods: International Development and the Making of the Postwar Order*. Ithaca and London, Cornell University Press.
- Helleiner E. 2017. The Latin American Origins of Bretton Woods. In M. Margulis (ed.) *The Global Political Economy of Raúl Prebisch*. Oxon, UK and New York, Routledge, 78–94.
- Klinge G. 1932. Conferencia para Estudiar las Relaciones Comerciales en Perú y otros países. *La Vida Agrícola. Revista de Agricultura y Ganadería*, 9(101), 214.
- Kofas J. 1995. *Foreign Debt and Underdevelopment: US – Peru Economic Relations, 1930–1970*. Lanham, University Press of America.
- Larrañaga P. 1940. *Senderos en la jungla económico-política*. Lima, Editorial Bolívar.
- Larrañaga P. 1947. *Prédicas en el desierto. Estudios básicos sobre nuestra realidad económica*. Lima, Sanmarti y Cía. S.A.

- Lavalle J. 1932a. *La depresión económica mundial*. Lima, Edit. Incacoteca.
- Lavalle J. 1932b. *Los factores básicos de la actual depresión económica: ponencias del Rotary Club de Lima a la cuarta conferencia del distrito*. Lima, Imp. Torres Aguirre.
- Lewis J., Webb R. and Kapur D. 1990. *Transcript of Oral History Interview with Aron Broches Held on October 20, 1990 (English)*. World Bank Group Archives Oral History Program, World Bank Group, Washington, DC. Interview by J. Lewis, R. Webb and D. Kapur, <http://documents.worldbank.org/curated/en/891771468197064100>
- McKenzie F. 2014. Where Was Trade at Bretton Woods? In G. Scott-Smith and J. Simon Rofe (eds.) *Global Perspectives on the Bretton Woods Conference and the Post-War World Order*. Cham, Palgrave Macmillan, 263–280.
- Octava Conferencia Internacional Americana. 1938. *Diario de sesiones (versiones taquigráficas) Lima, diciembre de 1938*. Lima, Imprenta Torres Aguirre.
- Palmeter D. and Mavroidis P. 2004. *Dispute Settlement in the World Trade Organization: Practice and Procedure*. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.
- Paulet P. 1935. *El Japón moderno y sus bases económicas*. Yokohama, The Japan Trade Daily Report.
- Paulet P. 1938. La Renta Nacional del Perú. *Informaciones Comerciales, Económicas y Financieras del Perú*, 2(9), 243–250.
- Peruvian Government. 1934. *Informe sobre la Séptima Conferencia Internacional Americana de Montevideo*. Lima, Gil S.A. Editores.
- Peruvian Government. 1935a. Decreto de Reorganización. *Boletín del Ministerio de Relaciones Exteriores*, 32(121), 11–19.
- Peruvian Government. 1935b. Nombramiento de los miembros de la Comisión Mixta Permanente Creada por el Tratado de Comercio con Chile. *Boletín del Ministerio de Relaciones Exteriores*, 32(122), 434–435.
- Peruvian Government. 1938. Negociaciones para un Tratado de Libre Comercio con Estados Unidos. *Boletín del Ministerio de Relaciones Exteriores*, 35(133), 475–479.
- Peruvian Government. 1940. *Memoria del Ministro de Relaciones Exteriores Don Enrique Goytisolo B. 20 de Abril a 8 de Diciembre de 1939*. Lima, Imprenta Torres Aguirre.
- Peruvian Government. 1942a. *Memoria del Ministro de Relaciones Exteriores Doctor Alfredo Solf y Muro, Julio 1940–Julio 1941*. Lima, Imprenta Torres Aguirre.
- Peruvian Government. 1942b. Comunicado Oficial sobre el Convenio Comercial Peruano-Estadounidense. *Informaciones Comerciales, Económicas y Financieras del Perú*, 21, 5–19.
- Peruvian Government. 1942c. Las Actividades de la Comisión de Política Económica Exterior del Perú. *Informaciones Comerciales, Económicas y Financieras del Perú*, 22, 22–34.
- Peruvian Government. 1944. *Memoria del Ministro de Relaciones Exteriores Doctor Alfredo Solf y Muro, Julio 1942–Julio 1943*. Lima, Imprenta Torres Aguirre.
- Schuler K. and Canning C. 2019. *Just Before Bretton Woods: The Atlantic City Conference, June 1944*. New York, Center for Financial Stability.
- Schuler K. and Rosenberg A. 2024. *The Bretton Woods Transcripts*. New York, Center for Financial Stability.
- Thornton C. 2014. Voice and Vote for the Weaker Nations: Mexico's Bretton Woods. In G. Scott-Smith and J. Simon Rofe (eds.) *Global Perspectives on the Bretton Woods Conference and the Post-War World Order*. Cham, Palgrave Macmillan, 149–165.
- Thornton C. 2021. *Revolution in Development: Mexico and the Governance of the Global Economy*. Oakland, CA, University of California Press.
- Tudela y Varela F. 1944. La posición del Perú frente a los problemas de la Post-Guerra. *Peruanidad*, 4(17), 1357–1365.
- Tudela y Varela F. 1946. *Exposición hecha al Directorio del Banco Central de Reserva del Perú por su Presidente*. Lima, Banco Central de Reserva del Perú.

- US Government. 1948. *Proceedings and Documents of the United Nations Monetary and Financial Conference, Bretton Woods, New Hampshire, July 1–22, 1944*. Washington, US Government Printing Office.
- US Government. 1957. *Foreign Relations of the United States: Diplomatic Papers, 1939, the American Republics*, Vol. V. Washington, US Government Printing Office.
- US Government. 1961. *Foreign Relations of the United States: Diplomatic Papers, 1940, the American Republics*, Vol. V. Washington, US Government Printing Office.
- US Government. 1962. *Foreign Relations of the United States: Diplomatic Papers, 1941, the American Republics*, Vol. VII. Washington, US Government Printing Office.
- US Government. 1976. *Foreign Relations of the United States, 1950, The United Nations, the Western Hemisphere*, Vol. II. Washington, US Government Printing Office.